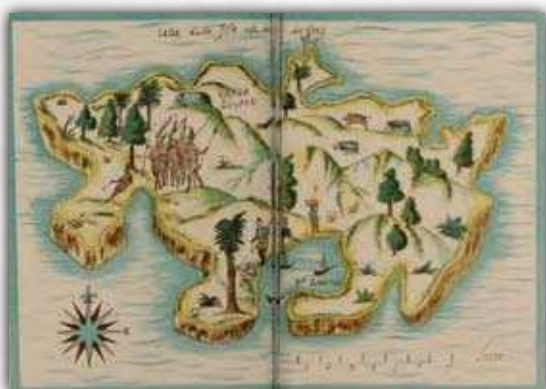




Communities in **contact**

Essays in archaeology, ethnohistory & ethnography of
the Amerindian circum-Caribbean

edited by
Corinne L. Hofman &
Anne van Duijvenbode



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Sidestone Press

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Foreground image: Coral artefact with human face in relief found at the site of Anse à la Gourde, Guadeloupe, AD 1000-1400 (Photo by J. Pauptit).

Background image: Detail of feature layer with postholes cut into the bedrock at the site of El Cabo, Dominican Republic, AD 1000-1500 (Photo by A.V.M. Samson).

Back cover, left to right: Artistic, life-sized interpretation of the archaeological site El Chorro de Maíta, Cuba , AD 1200-1600 (Photo by A. van Duijvenbode). / Wooden stool or duho recovered from the island of Dominica, dated between AD 1315-1427. Catalogue number ECB40669, Economic Botany Collection, Royal Botanic Gardens, Kew, UK (Photo by J. Ostapkowicz). / Clay Figurine found at the Lavoutte site, St. Lucia, AD 1200-1500 (photo by M.L.P. Hoogland).

Front cover, left to right: Map of Guadeloupe published by Champlain in 1859 (Photo by A.J. Bright). / The Trio-Okomoyana village of Amotopo in the midwest of Suriname in 2007 (Photo by J.L.J.A. Mans). / Frontal view of the upper incisors and canines of individual 72B from the site of El Chorro de Maíta, Cuba, AD 1200-1600, showing intentional dental modification (Photo by H.L. Mickleburgh).

Contents

Preface	9
<i>Corinne L. Hofman and Anne van Duijvenbode</i>	
Foreword	11
<i>José R. Oliver</i>	
MOBILITY AND EXCHANGE	
Unravelling the multi-scale networks of mobility and exchange in the pre-colonial circum-Caribbean	15
<i>Corinne L. Hofman and Menno L.P. Hoogland</i>	
The social in the circum-Caribbean	45
Toward a transcontextual order	
<i>Alexander Geurds</i>	
Bringing interaction into higher spheres	61
Social distance in the Late Ceramic Age Greater Antilles as seen through ethnohistorical accounts and the distribution of social valuables	
<i>Angus A.A. Mol</i>	
Early phytocultural processes in the pre-Colonial Antilles	87
A pan-Caribbean survey for an ongoing starch grain research	
<i>Jaime R. Pagán-Jiménez</i>	
The circulation of jadeitite across the Caribbeanscape	117
<i>Reniel Rodríguez Ramos</i>	
‘This relic of antiquity’	137
Fifth to fifteenth century wood carvings from the southern Lesser Antilles	
<i>Joanna Ostapkowicz, Christopher Bronk Ramsey, Alex C. Wiedenhoef, Fiona Brock, Tom Higham, and Samuel M. Wilson</i>	
Much to choose from	171
The use and distribution of siliceous stone in the Lesser Antilles	
<i>Sebastiaan Knippenberg</i>	
Diverse origins, similar diets	187
An integrated isotopic perspective from Anse à la Gourde, Guadeloupe	
<i>Jason E. Laffoon and Bart R. de Vos</i>	
Trio movements and the Amotopoan flux	205
<i>Jimmy L.J.A. Mans</i>	

CULTURE CONTACT

- El Chorro de Maíta** 225
A diverse approach to a context of diversity
*Roberto Valcárcel Rojas, Darlene A. Weston, Hayley L. Mickleburgh, Jason E. Laffoon
and Anne van Duijvenbode*
- Conflicting cosmologies** 253
The exchange of brilliant objects between the Taíno of Hispaniola and the Spanish
Floris W.M. Keehnen
- In sickness and in health** 269
Possibilities for studying the social and cultural implications of treponemal
disease in the Caribbean area
Rachel Schats
- Through the eyes of the chronicler** 281
Adriana I. Churampi Ramírez
- From Cayo to *Kalinago*** 291
Aspects of Island Carib archaeology
Arie Boomert
- “Removed from off the face of the island”** 307
Late pre-Colonial and early Colonial Amerindian society in the Lesser Antilles
Alistair J. Bright
- An ethnohistorical approach of the Carib through written sources** 327
The example of the *Relation* by Jacques Bouton
Bernard Grunberg
- De insulis Karaybicus relationes manuscriptæ** 343
Adrien Le Breton, the last Jesuit missionary in the Carib island of St. Vincent
Benoît Roux
- John Nicholl** 361
An Houre Glasse of Indian Newes (1607)
Eugénie de Zutter
- Pierre Pelleprat** 367
A missionary between the Lesser Antilles and the Continent
Emilie Chatrie
- The first missionaries and the evangelization of black slaves in the Lesser
Antilles in the early years of French colonization (1625-1655)** 379
Eric Roulet

SETTLEMENT AND COMMUNITY

Living islands of the Caribbean 393

A view of relative sea level change from the water's edge

Jago Cooper and Richard Boothroyd

Palaeoecology and human occupation during the Mid-Holocene in Puerto Rico: the case of Angostura 407

Isabel C. Rivera-Collazo

The most beautiful house in the world 421

The archaeology of aesthetics in eastern Hispaniola

Alice V.M. Samson

***Plus d'une Langue* (no more language / more than a language)** 439

Archaeology, history and ethnography in the Guiana highlands

Renzo S. Duin

Ethnoarchaeology of the Amazonian house 455

Pre-Columbian and Jivaro continuity in Ecuador

Stéphien Rostain

Contextualization of Amazonia artefacts 475

Indigenous cosmologies and the Nature/Culture divide

Sonia Duin

EPILOGUE

Scale, hybridity, and perspective in the Caribbean and beyond 491

Michael J. Heckenberger

List of Contributors 505

“REMOVED FROM OFF THE FACE OF THE ISLAND”

Late pre-Colonial and early Colonial Amerindian society in the Lesser Antilles

Alistair J. Bright

Archaeologically speaking, the transition from pre-Colonial to Colonial Amerindian culture in the Lesser Antilles is still poorly understood. On many islands, radiocarbon dates extend no later than the early fifteenth century, and archaeology of Colonial period Amerindian society is almost non-existent. However, from the mid-seventeenth century onwards, Lesser Antillean Amerindian society basked in considerable attention from European travellers, traders and missionaries. Many of these committed their observations to paper, yielding a plethora of ethnological accounts *avant-la-lettre* as well as maps of fresh Colonial possessions. This article examines the rich ethnohistorical and cartographic record of the Colonial period Caribbean, with the aim of providing a baseline for a yet to be initiated archaeology of Colonial period Amerindian society in the Lesser Antilles. Not only the great potential but also the problems associated with these lines of evidence will be discussed.

Desde la perspectiva de la arqueología, la transición de la cultura pre-Colonial a la Colonial en las Antillas Menores sigue siendo mal conocido. En muchas islas, fechas de radiocarbono no sobrepasan los principios del Siglo XV y una arqueología sobre la sociedad amerindia del período colonial es prácticamente inexistente. Sin embargo, a partir del Siglo XVII, la sociedad amerindia de las Antillas Menores es objetivo de considerable atención de parte de viajeros europeos, comerciantes y misioneros. Muchos de ellos escribieron sobre sus observaciones, produciendo de tal manera una plétora de memorias etnológicas adelantadas a su tiempo, así como mapas de las posesiones coloniales recién obtenidas. Este artículo examina el registro etnohistórico y cartográfico en el Caribe del período Colonial, con el objetivo de proporcionar una línea base para una arqueología de la sociedad indígena en las Antillas Menores en el período Colonial, que aún es por estar iniciado. No sólo el potencial, sino también los problemas asociados con estas líneas de pruebas se discutirá.

Sur le plan archéologique, la transition entre la culture amérindienne précoloniale et coloniale est toujours mal comprise dans les Petites Antilles. Sur la plupart des îles, les dates radiocarbones ne remontent guère plus loin qu'au début du XVe siècle et l'archéologie de la société amérindienne de la période coloniale est quasi inexistante. Cependant, dès la moitié du XVIIe siècle, la société Amérindienne des Petites Antilles a reçu une attention considérable de la part des voyageurs, commerçants et missionnaires européens. Bon nombre d'entre eux ont consigné leurs observations par écrit, laissant une pléthore de comptes-rendus ethnologiques *avant-la-lettre*, de même que des cartes des nouvelles possessions coloniales. Cet article examine la richesse des registres ethno historique et cartographique caribéens

de la période coloniale, dans le but de fournir une base de référence pour une archéologie Amérindienne de cette période qui doit encore être engagée dans les Petites Antilles. Nous discuterons ici non seulement du grand potentiel de cette nouvelle approche, mais aussi des problèmes qui y sont associés.

Introduction

Archaeologically speaking, the transition from pre-Colonial to Colonial times in the Lesser Antilles is as yet poorly understood. On many islands, radiocarbon dates extend no later than the early fifteenth century, and archaeology of Colonial period Amerindian society is still in its infancy in the Lesser Antilles. Ethnohistorical accounts of Lesser Antillean Amerindian society are extremely sparse and fleeting at best until the beginning of the seventeenth century, and only really pick up from the mid 1600s onwards. There is a gap of arguably some 150 years between the first eyewitness accounts of the Spanish in the Lesser Antilles in the 1490s (Chanca 1993; Columbus 1997) and the more lengthy accounts produced mainly by French missionaries from the mid-1600s onwards, following in the wake of permanent European settlement of the region. Prior to that, sporadic and fleeting European forays into the Lesser Antilles yielded sparing, superficial reports, while the Spanish concentrated their energies on the Greater Antilles and later Middle America and South America. This leads to a situation of arguably some 250 years during which our view of Amerindian society is murky at best and non-existent at worst. Therefore, this article will first sketch the outlines of late pre-Colonial (late phase Late Ceramic Age: AD 1000-1500) Amerindian society on the basis of archaeological research, before moving on to discuss Amerindian society in Colonial times as glimpsed through ethnohistorical sources and Colonial cartography. The overview will centre mainly on the Windward Islands, because most (extensive) ethnohistorical sources focus on the Windward Islands (and Guadeloupe). Though highly preliminary and far from exhaustive, it is hoped that this selective overview of early Colonial period resources will go some way in contributing to a yet to be elaborated archaeology of Colonial period Caribbean Amerindian society.

Reconstructing late pre-Colonial-period Amerindian society

The Windward Islands are generally considered to have seen continual occupation from the Early Ceramic Age (AD 300/400-700) up to Colonial times (Allaire 1977; Boomert 1987; Bullen and Bullen 1972; Drewett, ed. 1991), although radiocarbon evidence for the Windward Islands in the main does not stretch beyond AD 1300 (see also Bright 2011; Fitzpatrick 2006). From the 1490s onwards, (ethno)historical sources attest to a significant Amerindian presence in the region (Anonymous of Carpentras 2002; Breton 1978, 1998; De Laet 1931; Nicholl 1607). However, the question is not whether there was an indigenous survival, but rather which (indigenous) peoples survived and hence were reported on in the Early Colonial Period. Unlike the Greater Antillean islands, which seem to have experienced a relatively undisturbed local development from the Early Ceramic Age onwards, some of the Lesser Antilles (and the southern in particular), apparently saw the continual arrival of mainland South American newcomers (Hofman *et al.* 2007; Hofman *et al.* 2011), most intensively during the final centuries of the pre-Colonial period (see below).

In general, Amerindian settlement in the Windward Islands reached its peak during the late phase of the Late Ceramic Age, with some 100 settlements distributed over the islands, as well as another 150 smaller sites (Bright 2011). Most Amerindian settlements are postulated to have been situated along the coast, and close to mollusc-rich mangrove habitats and offshore coral reefs, rather than to the moist, forested areas and freshwater rivers that were so important in earlier times (Bérard and Vidal 2003:26; Keegan 2000:146). Settlement layout likewise appears to hold over from earlier times, with no apparent single structuring principle, and dwellings of varying shapes and sizes (Bright 2003; Morsink 2006). Burial practices are more complex though, with a noticeable shift from communal to private interment and all kinds of post-mortem manipulation of the grave and the interred taking place (Hofman and Hoogland 2004). Allaire (1991:716-717) characterized Late Ceramic Age Windward society as Amazonian in the broadest sense of the word, with its tropical forest ecosystem setting, subsistence based on slash-and-burn cultivation of manioc, supplemented by hunting and fishing, relatively low populations and simple, village-based social organization. Allaire (1991:717, 722) also advanced the possibility of an incipient, more integrated level of social development, in deference to Roosevelt's work (underscored by later developments in Amazonian archaeology) and cross-comparative research on coastal societies worldwide. Already far from culturally homogeneous in earlier times, Windward Island society appears to have diversified dramatically in final pre-Colonial times. Regional unity gave way to more localized contact networks perhaps under the influence of an increasing influx of people from the mainland of South America and possibly the Greater Antilles and Leeward Islands (Hofman *et al.* 2007). A number of late pre-Colonial/early Colonial-period ceramic assemblages evince a marked Guianan influence (particularly of the Koriabo complex), and have been termed Cayo ware (Boomert 1986, 2004, this volume). These ceramics are tentatively linked to the historically recorded Island Carib (Allaire 1980, 1984; Boomert 1986, 1995, this volume), who recount stories of their migration from the South American mainland to the islands (see below).

From the late 1400s onwards, we move into the realm of written records for the Caribbean region, although the accounts discussing the Lesser Antilles remain sparse and unrepresentative until the advent of the seventeenth century. The ethnohistorical record will now be considered, first for the Caribbean in general, and then for the Windward Islands in particular.

Reconstructing early Colonial-period Amerindian society

Having sketched the outlines of an Amerindian islandscape during late pre-Colonial times, it is time to advance into the Colonial era, and draw what we can from historical sources and Colonial-period cartography. There is a considerable amount of literature on the use of ethnohistorical sources by archaeologists, particularly dealing with how “[H]igh levels of cultural continuity [...] have prompted archaeologists to examine the historical record to augment, elucidate and explain prehistoric culture patterns and developments” (Spores 1980:578-579). While archaeological and documentary data are both convergent and parallel categories of evidence, to be utilized together or independently of one another (Spores 1980:579), Wilson (1994) has raised numerous issues concerning the use of ethnohistorical sources by archaeologists. Foremost, there is the issue of mixed epistemologies. Using historical accounts in conjunction with archaeological data from before contact period raises similar problems as viewing structure and history in a synthetic fashion: namely the

difficulty of integrating macroscale and microscale processes [of sociopolitical change] into a coherent explanation (Wilson 1994:23-24). Ethnohistoric documents record events and personalities, and give glimpses of the structure of relationships between people, and at best, insight into the structure and operation of cultural systems. Archaeology addresses human behaviour on a much larger scale – for example in the numbers and sizes of settlements through time, characteristics and changes through time of artefact assemblages, settlement patterns and so on. However, for this research, these concerns are less germane, as the primary intention is not so much to project ethnohistorical findings back into the archaeological past, but rather to assess the potential for a complementary archaeological perspective on ethnohistorical source material. A secondary intention would be to compare late pre-Colonial data to early Colonial information, in a sense bridging the historical divide, to inquire as to what potentially stayed the same and what changes may have taken place from pre-Colonial to Colonial times.

Which Amerindians?

One of the most intriguing developments in Lesser Antillean society from pre-Colonial to Colonial times is that of the supposed large-scale arrival of newcomers on the scene from coastal areas of the Guianas of South America. This phenomenon comes as no surprise to archaeologists of the region, who have long recognized that insular Caribbean society is marked by a constant to-ing and fro-ing between islands and mainlands (cf. Hofman *et al.* 2007, 2011). The final migration appears to have been more impacting than any earlier movement though, allegedly entailing the eradication of the male Arawak residents of the islands and the usurping of the female population for the purposes of the new arrivals, who came to be known as *Kalinago* or Island Carib. However, Boomert (1995:31-32) cautions that, notwithstanding the Caribs' own accounts of their arrival, it may be safer for now to regard them as immigrants rather than invaders. According to Breton (1978) these Island Carib referred to an unspecified mainland origin, while Du Puis (1972) and Du Tertre (1654) add that they were descended from the mainland *Kalibis* (i.e. *Galibi*). All three agree that the newcomers first settled on Dominica (see also Verrand 2001:103-104). Rochefort records that the Island Carib themselves claimed descent from the *Galibis* of Guyana, and first settled on Tobago, one of the islands closest to the mainland (Rochefort 1658:324-330). Rochefort also refers to the mainland origin of the earlier inhabitants of the islands, highlighting the similarity in language between that spoken by Arawaks of the mainland and Island Carib women (Hulme and Whitehead 1992:120). Castres (2002:70) does not make mention of a mainland origin, but writes that the Amerindians believed in a great flood, which only a man named Lovéco survived, from whom they were all descended.

These island testimonies are corroborated by a slightly earlier mainland source, an account written by James Ley around 1608 (Lorimer, ed. 2006). He writes the following: "The Carybes have tenn Rivers, owya Kayani, Macullia, Cawrur, Surinamma. Towpannoma and one other little River. And one other little Iland called Dominica; And one Iland called santa bissin, And one Iland called santa Luea, and an Iland called Camawya, their Captaine is Mayerawon" (Ley in Lorimer 2006:326-327). The rivers that have been identified (Macuria, Kourou, Suriname and Coppename) are all located in Surinam and French Guyana, the islands referred to are Dominica, Saint Vincent, Saint Lucia and Grenada (see also Lorimer 2006:318-320, 326-327). Castres also mentions that the Carib who formerly possessed many of the Lesser Antillean islands were at the time of his writing mainly estab-

lished in St. Vincent, Dominica and on the mainland around the Amazon river, near the Suriname river and close to Cayenne (Castres 2002:74).

As the Colonial period wore on, yet another major demographic upheaval was to take place however, compounding the hazy view of ethnicity in the area during the early Colonial period. In the words of Shepard (1971:21): “In the occasional visits to Saint Vincent, two distinct races of men were discovered, they were of different origins, and their appearances and manners plainly corresponded with those of different portions of the globe. One of these tribes had evidently *descended from the Aborigines of the Island, those of the other tribe were as evidently intruders*”. The “intruders” represented the intermixed groups of Amerindians and escaped African slaves, who came to be known as Black Carib (cf. Young 1971), and later *Garifuna* (Gonzalez 1988). A number of early sources refer to several shipwrecks of slaving ships off the coast of St. Vincent or Bequia in the seventeenth century as the inception of this intermingling. Survivors of the shipwreck made it to the shore and were accepted into Amerindian society (Foster 1987; Gonzalez 1990:25; Johnson 2007:181). However, Foster (1987) points to the early intermixing of Africans with Amerindians borne out by three terms in Breton’s 1665 Carib-French dictionary: “Chibárali, cachionna, yabouloupou, *sont les enfants engendrés des Sauvages et des Nègresses, qui sont nommés ainsi*” (Breton 1998:7). Thus, while the shipwreck may have formed a considerable impetus to this process of ethnogenesis, there had probably been sporadic incidences of intermingling almost as soon as African slaves arrived in the Caribbean early in the sixteenth century, as a result of prisoners taken from the Spanish during Island Carib raids on Puerto Rico (Foster 1987:75; Moreau 1992:69). Their numbers grew as escaped slaves from other Windward Islands joined up with them in defiance of Colonial authorities (Boomert 2002:150; Gonzalez 1990).

These Black Carib adopted aspects of Island Carib culture, even going so far as to practice cranial modification to set themselves apart from black slaves of Europeans, and called themselves *Kalinago* (Shepard 1971:24). “The next generation thus became as it were, a new race, they gradually quitted the woods, erected huts, and formed little communities on the coast” (Shepard 1971:24). In time, the Black Carib came to outnumber the original Carib, and manifested themselves as the most active and effective opponents of European Colonial venture. According to Shepard, they also initiated hostilities against the Yellow Carib (i.e. unmixed) populations who “at length were obliged to retire to the Windward parts of the Island, some fled to the Continent, and some to Tobago” (Shepard 1971:25).

Having provided the briefest of outlines of late pre-Colonial and early Colonial period Amerindian lifeways, we now turn to a consideration of the ethnohistorical record and Colonial cartography for evidence of Amerindian habitation and/or presence in the islands. While many sources make general remarks about Amerindian lifeways, choices governing settlement location and the structure of villages (cf. Breton 1978, 1998; Le Breton 1998), their observations are generally not specific enough to allow identification of any exact settlement locations, and will therefore not be considered here.

Indirect ethnohistorical evidence

Indirect evidence consists of reports of encounters and/or interaction with Amerindians, for which either the general locality of the encounter or of Amerindians settlements could potentially be reconstructed.

- “I kept on sailing along the coast of this island [Guadeloupe] without being able to find a port or a bottom where I could anchor until I reached the north side, where most of the population lives, and I went in very close to land and anchored with the whole fleet [...] The villages of this island were not many, and they were scattered in various locations on the edges of the island” (Columbus 1997:205)
- “Along the seacoast there were small clusters of hamlets whose inhabitants would all flee as soon as they noticed our coming” (Chanca 1993:19).
- “From the said isle [La Deseade in text, but probably actually Marie-Galante] we passed to another island, called Guadeloupe, which is very mountainous and inhabited by savages; in it there are numbers of good ports, in one of which, named Macou, we took in water, and as we landed we saw more than three hundred savages, who fled into the mountains at our approach [...]” (Champlain 1959:6).
- On the eve of the 30th of August 1625, General Boudewijn Hendrickszoon arrived at the south coast of St. Vincent, and anchored six ships in each of the three bays, to draw more Amerindians on board and to better refresh their dwindling supplies. They departed again on September 10th, well provisioned (De Laet 1931:93-94).
- On June 4th 1630, the Admiral’s fleet found itself just off Barbados, and arrived at St. Vincent the day after, anchoring off the south coast in the Sint Anthonis Bay (De Laet 1932:164).
- On February 10th 1626, General Boudewijn Hendrickszoon found himself off the north-west coast of Dominica, near a large sandy bay and a little river where fresh water could be taken in. An Amerindian village was located about half a mile away, whose inhabitants were described as malevolent and untrustworthy (De Laet 1931:116).
- On July 12th 1629, General Pieter Pietersz. Heyn and his fleet anchored off the south coast of St. Vincent, at the Sint Anthonis Bay. Two other ships had departed a little before the rest of the fleet, and had arrived at Grenada on June 27th. The crew had set foot on shore, and had dug a number of holes on the beach to acquire fresh water. They had also gone a little inland to visit two villages where many Amerindians lived, who had received them in friendly fashion. These warned them of another group of Amerindians who lived on the other side of the island in the hills, who were evil and showed animosity to strangers and even them (De Laet 1932:58).
- Commander Jan Jansz. Van Hoorn and his fleet anchored at a bay along the southwest coast of Grenada on June 12th 1629. The Amerindians of the island are described as being a very malicious people, who all ran off upon the arrival of the Dutch. They could not be made to come out and converse, but displayed extreme animosity, firing poisoned arrows at the crew from the thickets. The fleet departed again, laden with fresh water, ballast and lumber, but no victuals (De Laet 1932:91-92).
- Moreau de Jonnès (1920), a Frenchman who aided the Carib in their war against the English records his arrival at St. Vincent in 1795 by ship among the Red Carib somewhere along the eastern coast. Amerindians in canoes come out from the shore to help guide the ship past treacherous reefs and banks to their natural harbour, which Moreau de Jonnès describes as follows:

This haven was a basin surrounded by a shelf of basalt 15 to 20 feet high; the depth of its water was enough to float a frigate. Two hillocks covered with a rich vegetation stood on each side of its opening to the sea, and their tufted trees, bending over the surface, formed a canopy to it. Beside a rushing stream which flowed from the mountains of the interior into the harbour rose the many huts of a large hamlet, like beehives in the shape of their roofs, made of palm-leaves, but their wattled sides allowed a free passage to the breezes and rays of light. In the middle of the village was a communal house containing an assembly-hall at least 80 feet long; there I found gathered together the chiefs and warriors of the two tribes, the Red and the Black Caribs (Moreau de Jonnès 1920:115).

Direct ethnohistorical evidence

Direct ethnohistorical evidence is such that Amerindian settlements are described, the locality of which can be pinpointed quite confidently. Various sources will be considered, roughly in geographical order from south to north.

Shepard (1831), in his overview of the Second Carib War details the location of several (temporary) Carib settlements on St. Vincent: the Vigie Carib camp, eastward of the upper Warrawarrou Valley not very far from the Fountain Estate, the Mount Young Carib settlement, the Wallibo settlement, and the settlement of Grand Sable where the English smashed 200 Carib canoes. The Morne Rond settlement remained occupied after the conclusion of the war. After the English victory over the Carib in the Second Carib War, the sentiment of the English settlers on St. Vincent was as follows: “[...] it is represented that the late attack upon them by the Charaibs was wholly unprovoked; and that in its operation cruelty and perfidy were so blended, that no future confidence can subsist; and that the sole alternative remains, of themselves, or of the Charaibs being removed from off the face of the island” (Young 1971:2). The government decided upon a forcible deportation of the majority of the Black Carib to the island of Roatán, off the coast of Honduras (Gonzalez 1988). However, the Black Carib were initially rounded up and herded onto the tiny island of Baliceaux, south-east of St. Vincent. Here they were forced to spend many months awaiting their final removal to Central America. A great number died on the island, weakened by hunger and ravaged by disease, and more died during the passage to Roatán (Gonzalez 1988).

In 1605, the ship the Olive Branch and its crew had been bound for the new English colony of Charles Leigh in Guiana, which was in desperate need of supplies and men (Jesse 1966; Lorimer, ed. 2006:xciv; Morgan 2004; see also Boomert 2002 and De Zutter, this volume). The Olive Branch was soon in dire straits itself though, as it completely missed its mark of Guiana, due to bad luck and incompetent seamanship. After seventeen weeks of sailing, the mutinous and starved crewmembers approached the coast of St. Lucia. Indians from a nearby settlement immediately came out to the ship in their canoes, to trade with the English. Realizing that the Olive Branch could not stock up on enough provisions to support the entire crew on its further journey and in light of the apparent goodwill of the Amerindians, a party under the leadership of Captain Nicholas Saint-Johns decided to stay behind on the island, until some means of rescue presented itself. The detailed nature of John Nicholl’s account of the precarious sojourn of the English in the south of the island has allowed Caribbean archaeologist Ripley Bullen (1966) to reconstruct the localities mentioned in the text and tentatively link some of these localities to known archaeological sites. Some 200 years later, Pugnet (1804), a French doctor charged with inspecting the

health of the colonists on St. Lucia, records the presence of a Black Carib family at Choc along the northwestern coast and a so-called Red Carib¹ family residing at Vieux Fort.

In 1694 on Martinique, Père Labat, on his way to Cul-de-Sac Robert by canoe, got caught in a squall and sought refuge at la Pointe à la Rose. A Carib family lived here, and Labat described the family, the house and its visitors in detail: “This building is the last Carib Carbet remaining in Martinique. It was about sixty feet long by twenty-five feet wide and built something like a barn. The smallest posts were about nine feet high out of the ground. The rafters reached the ground on each side, and were covered by a thatch of palmiste leaves supported by lathes of roseaux. One end of the carbet was entirely closed by a wall of roseaux and palmiste, except for an opening leading to the kitchen, the other end was open (Labat 1970:87-89). A few years later, in 1700, Labat was on his way to Guadeloupe, but stopped off at Dominica to take on a cargo of lumber. His ship anchored on the leeward side of the island opposite the carbet of Madame Oüvernard (the mother of Thomas ‘Indian’ Warner) (Labat 1970:92). Labat then crossed the island to the windward side where he spent a further six days, visiting many carbets “from the point facing Macouba to the point facing Marie Galante” (Labat 1970:96). One of these Windward side carbets may have been that of the Dominican Carib chief Oüalláchoüala (known to the French as *Le Baron*) or his followers, who is mentioned in the earlier chronicles of the mid-1600s and was in fact the host of Father Breton (Breton 1998:73). *Le Baron*’s settlement was called *Itachi* (Breton 1998:237), and was at or near present-day Vieille Case.

Concerning Guadeloupe, Carib were confined to isolated areas of Grande-Terre, where even there their numbers dwindled over the years, presumably under the impact of encroaching Europeans. In 1730, some seventy-six Amerindians were recorded and in 1746, Carib are reported as living on Ilet à Christophe in the Grand-Cul-de-Sac. In the nineteenth century, a number of Carib families are recorded at Anse du Petit Portland, and by 1855, the last Amerindians are documented to have taken refuge at Anse-Bertrand, Pointe des Châteaux and Le Moule. The last mention of Amerindians on Guadeloupe comes towards the end of the nineteenth century, when descendants of the Carib of Anse-Bertrand claim land to the west of Pointe de la Grande Vigie (Delpuech 2001:31-32).

The use of historic maps

Similarly to recent work in the field of Indonesian archaeology (Lape 2002), I propose to make greater use of the considerable potential of historic maps as testimonies of indigenous Amerindian activity. Of course, every map is essentially a “social construction of the world expressed through cartography” (Harley 2001:35), and as such harbours the same potential for manipulation and bias as any other type of historical evidence. Glazier (1983) was perhaps the first Caribbeanist to explicitly address the research potential of “antique” maps for the study of Caribbean prehistory, highlighting four potentially fruitful areas of inquiry: (1) the location of archaeological sites (mission sites and aboriginal settlements), (2) linguistic and ethnicity data in the form of toponyms, (3) cartouches that portray native flora and fauna and, (4) evidence of tribal migrations (Glazier 1983:556). Particularly the first two points will be taken up here. As above, evidence will be divided into direct and

1 The term Red Carib as employed by Colonial European chroniclers generally means Amerindians of pure descent (cf. also the term Yellow Carib), as opposed to the Black Carib, who are of mixed African and Amerindian descent.

indirect, and discussed in that order. Under direct cartographic evidence falls any depiction of Amerindian settlements or other type of presence. Indirect evidence of Carib presence or settlement takes one of the following four forms: (1) indication of Amerindian presence, usually in form of a visualized trading encounter, (2) approximate location of settlement (proximity assumed), (3) general areas demarcated as Amerindian, and (4) Amerindian toponymy.

Direct cartographic evidence

On the 1770 Jefferys map of Tobago, mention is made of an “Indian Town”, and three villages which are singled out as residences of Kings (Cardinal, Peter and Roussel – actually a Frenchman who had taken an Amerindian wife) and furnished with extra information (see also Boomert 2002). As such, we read that “King Peter the Indian Chief with about 14 or 16 People lives hereabouts”, “The Indian King Cardinal with his Wives and about 80 People live on a hill hereabouts” and “The Indian King Rouselle with his Wives and People about 30 in Number lives here”. In addition, there are three mentions of “Indians”. Five years later, King Cardinal was dropped from an updated map, as was the additional information with which the two other Kings had been furnished. They are now simply referred to as “King Peter’s People 16” and “King Roussel’s People”. The Indian Town referred to before now reverts to the simple “Indians” gloss, joining the three other “Indians” references. By the time Bowen published his 1779 map of Tobago in London’s Gentleman’s Magazine, King Peter had apparently disappeared from the scene, and only three mentions of “Indians” were made. This gradual erasing of Amerindian presence from the maps is perhaps reflective of the increasingly marginal Amerindian presence on Tobago as a result of European encroachment.

Bellin’s St. Lucia maps of 1758/1763 are the first to record the location of a Carib settlement, in the form of a gloss “Carbet de Caraibes” midway along the eastern coast just south of present-day Anse Louvet (see also figure 1). It is perhaps no coincidence that the site is located beside Anse Mabouya (*mabouya* is the term repeatedly recorded by French missionaries among the Amerindians of the Lesser Antilles for the devil or an evil spirit) as on the map.

Jefferys’ 1775 map of St. Lucia (see also Hofman and Bright 2004: Map 2) upholds this identification, now glossed as “Caribs” and embellished with a cluster of three triangles (the standard cartographic convention for an Amerindian settlement at this time). Lefort de Latour’s survey map of 1787 makes no mention of Carib anymore, not at this location or anywhere else on the island, and is probably more reliable than the later Fielding map of 1823 which repeats the presence of “Caribs”, but is likely an uninformed copy of an earlier map, perhaps that of Jefferys.

A number of precise indications of Amerindian settlements are provided for Martinique too. A 1657 map of Martinique by Visscher depicts numerous Carib localities, most notably one near present-day Anse Figuier along the southern coast (glossed as *Carbet de Capitaine Pilote*), another near present-day Le Vauclin along the southeastern coast (glossed as *Carbet, lieu ou les Caraibes font leur [sic] assemblées*) and a settlement referred to as *Case de Caerman* (a Carib chief) near present-day Ste-Marie along the north-east coast. There are a further three mentions of *Carbet de Caraibes*, one along the south-east coast near present-day Malevaut, and two more halfway up the eastern coast at the start of and along the first part of the peninsula now called Presqu’île de la Caravelle. Sanson’s map

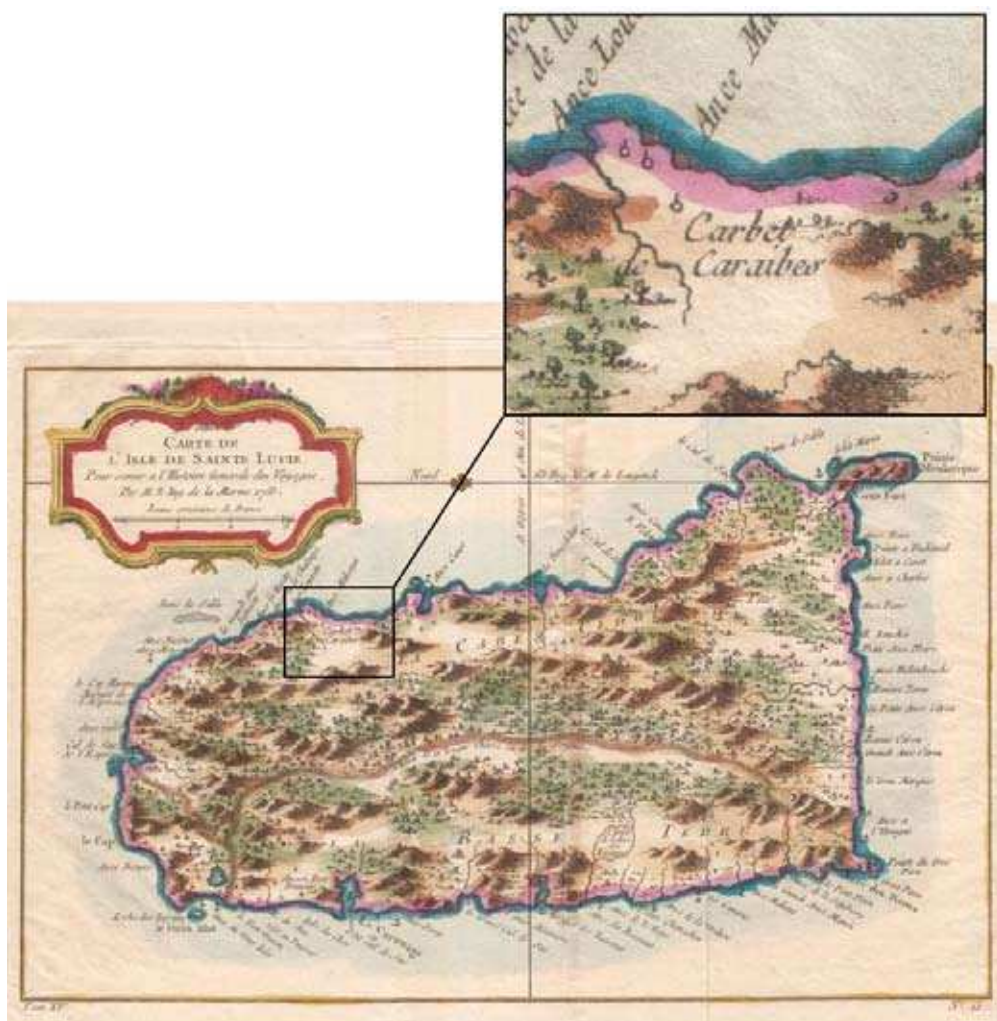


Figure 1 Bellin's *Carte de l'Isle de Sainte Lucie* 1758 and close-up of Carbet Caraibes.

(Bodington 2005), published just a year later than Visscher's, includes far fewer indications of Amerindian presence: only *Carbet du Capitaine Pilote* and *Carbet, lieu ou les Caraibes font leur* [sic] *assembleés* are retained. A 1665 map by Blondel depicts only the latter Carib locality (Verrand 2001: figure 1). Interestingly enough, a 1705 map by Nicholas de Fer depicts a new Carib locality, an assembly of houses glossed as *Carbet de Sauvages Macabou* (Huyghues-Belrose 2008:7).

Indirect cartographic evidence

Concerning visualized trading encounters, the maps accompanying Nicolas de Cardona's account *Geographic and hydrographic descriptions of many Northern and Southern lands and seas in the Indies, specifically of the discovery of the kingdom of California* (1974) are fine examples. Of particular interest with respect to Island Carib are the maps of Grenada, St. Vincent, St. Lucia and Guadeloupe, which depict stretches of coastline and trading

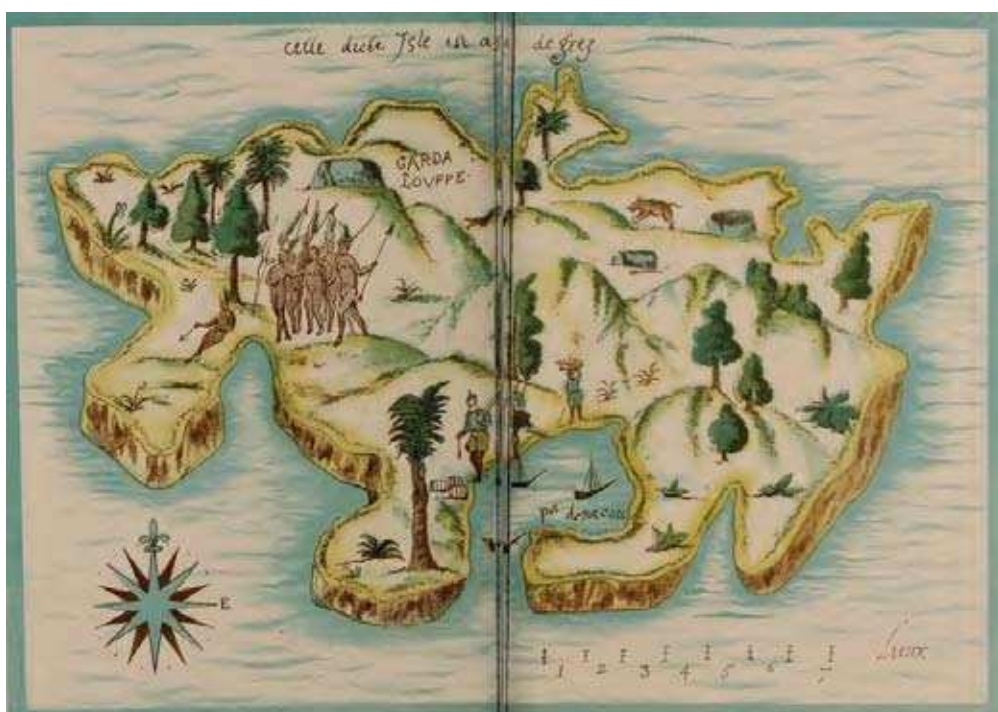


Figure 2 Map of Guadeloupe (Champlain 1859:between pages 6 and 7).

encounters with Amerindians that took place there, often in the form of one or several Amerindian canoes coming out to meet the Spanish ships. Thanks to the compass orientation, these encounters can be pinpointed to the northern coasts of Grenada, St. Lucia and St. Vincent, and the western coast of either Basse-Terre or Grande-Terre. A more intensive examination of the coastline features (bays, headlands and river mouths) may allow a more precise topological determination.

The map of Guadeloupe included in Samuel Champlain's *Narrative of a voyage to the West Indies and Mexico in the years 1599-1602 (1859)* depicts a troupe of naked Amerindians armed with bow-and-arrow and spears in the west, as well as three Amerindian barn-like longhouse structures in the northern part of the island (see Figure 2). The map actually lists a "pot de nacou" (cf. Macou mentioned above), as well as Europeans disembarking along what appears to be the east coast of Basse-Terre.

Ligon's 1657 map of Barbados is a last example of an interesting yet somewhat enigmatic Amerindian cartographic presence. Upon a detailed map (presumably containing accurate information on slave chasing, family estates and local animals), we find a depiction of an Amerindian with a tall bow and a canoe, glossed as "Salymingoe his Canowe 35 foot longe" (see also Handler 1977:191-193).

General areas demarcated as Amerindian

An example of indeterminate cartographic information on Carib settlement of islands is the mapping of Martinique throughout the latter half of the seventeenth century. Starting with Visscher's 1657 map, and continuing with Sanson's 1658 map, Van Keulen's 1684 map

and Norwood's 1690 map, the entire eastern half of the island is designated "Cabesterre, ou demeure des Sauvages". However, by 1660, the designation would actually have been outdated, as the Carib had begun to vacate the island during the mid 1650s as a result of wars against the French, and were largely removed from the island following the signing of a treaty with the French and English in 1659 that allegedly secured for them eternal possession of St. Vincent and Dominica (Boucher 1992:50-52). The St. Vincent map by Bryan Edwards features the gloss "Land granted to the Charibs in 1773" across the northern part. This concurs with article IV of the 1773 Treaty between the English and the Carib: "A portion of the lands hereafter mentioned, shall be allotted for the residence of the Caribs, from the River Byera to point Espagnole on the one side, and from the River Auilabou to Espagnole on the other side" (Shepard 1971:31). Jefferys' 1773 map of St. Vincent reveals the glosses "Caribs of Warrawarou Valley" and "Caribs of Cubaimarou and Ribishi" as well as showing the "Caribs Boundary" and labelling land north of the boundary "Caribs Lands". Byres' 1776 map of St. Vincent shows plots of land sold to "Charibbs" in Warrawarou Valley, Ribishi and Cubaimarou, and in the eastern, western and central parts of St. Vincent above the line demarcating the 1773 Treaty boundary (Byres 1777:vii). Furthermore, it shows a plot of land just above the Treaty line on the west coast sold by the Carib to Colonel Etherington in 1775 (Byres 1777:vii). Lucas Fielding's 1823 map is of course much less detailed, though it retains the Treaty boundary line and bears the designation "*Indians* of Cubaimarou and Ribishi" in the south-east quadrant of the island.

Toponymy

The recording of Amerindian toponymy and hydronymy commenced as early as Columbus, was elaborated by Breton in his dictionnaire, and finally analysed by Taylor (1956, 1958; site level, St. Vincent and Dominica), Huyghues-Belrose (2009; site level, Martinique) L'Étang (2004; island level, Caribbean) and Boomert (2001; island level, Tobago) in particular. Special note should be made of the work by Granberry and Vescelius (2004), who analysed various Taíno toponyms, partly for clues as to directionality and order of settlement of the Bahamas archipelago. In addition, Allaire (1977:88) has suggested for Martinique that the toponyms Paquemar, Macabou, Simon, François and Vauclin all refer to (the residences of) Amerindian chiefs. The same could be said for Ile de Caerman and Anse d'Arlet (Martinique). On St. Lucia an obvious contender for a toponym with links to Amerindians is Pointe Caraïbe or Caraïbe Point, in the south-west corner of the island. The significance of the placename Anse Mabouya has already been mentioned in the discussion of the Bellin and Jefferys maps. Bellin's 1758 map of Grenada lists several toponyms that may recall Amerindian presence: Ance des Galibis, Ance des Maringoins (cf. a similar placename in French Guiana but more likely a generic term that refers to the presence of mosquitoes) and Ance Caouenne (corruption of Caïrouane) (Petitjean Roget 1975:64), Ance du Quesne (Petitjean Roget 1975:65) and Ance d'Antoine / Islet d'Antoine (Petitjean Roget 1975:21), all Carib chiefs mentioned in the ethnohistorical record. The capital city of Barbados, Bridgetown, was originally called Indian Bridge, presumably after an Amerindian structure in the vicinity (Challenger *et al.* 1999). The toponyms Indian Mound and Indian River (also on Dominica) presumably have a similar bearing on the original island inhabitants.

Concluding remarks

Considering that we are dealing with late pre-Colonial / early Colonial period remains, there is every chance that archaeological recovery of Carib finds could be problematic. The shallow depth of the remains below the surface, the potential for disturbance by Colonial and modern day activities such as ploughing and construction as well as (coastal) erosion or lack of soil development would all conspire to make retrieval of these remains more difficult than older, deeper remains. However, recent rescue excavations carried out by teams from Leiden University at the site of Argyle on St. Vincent (Hoogland *et al.* in prep; Van den Biggelaar and Boomert 2010) have yielded Cayo ceramics, European Colonial ceramics and glass beads in the context of a settlement with posthole features that can be reconstructed into numerous Amerindian house plans. As such, ongoing excavation at this site that was first excavated by Allaire in the early 1990s (Allaire 1994; Allaire and Duval 1995) underlines the great potential of an Island/Black Carib archaeology and hints at many more fascinating discoveries that can be made by sound (ethno)historical research into this period coupled with opportune excavation. Reviewing the late pre-Colonial and Colonial period data, it is clear that there is enough potential to establish a new line of enquiry into Lesser Antillean Carib society informed, though not conditioned by, direct and indirect lines of evidence drawn from Colonial period ethnohistory, cartography and toponymy.

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